

FHS Knowledge and Reality: Knowledge

Readings

Core Readings (required)

Timothy Williamson (2000) *Knowledge and its Limits* (OUP), intro, Ch. 1, ch 2

Bernecker, S. and Pritchard, D. eds. (2011) *Routledge Companion to Epistemology* Part II 20

Blome-Tillmann, Michael (2007). The folly of trying to define knowledge. *Analysis* 67, 214-219.

Further Readings

*Patrick Greenough and Duncan Pritchard, eds. (2009) *Williamson on Knowledge* (OUP) papers by Fricker, Cassam

E. J. Lowe (2002) 'Critical Notice of Timothy Williamson's *Knowledge and its Limits*' in *International Journal of Philosophical Studies* 10(4), pp. 483–503

Timothy Williamson (2000) *Knowledge and its Limits* (OUP), ch 3

Kearns, Stephen (2007). In praise of folly: A reply to Blome-Tillmann. *Analysis* 67, 219-222.

Edward Craig (1987) 'The Practical Explication of Knowledge' in *Proceedings of the Aristotelian Society* 87, pp. 211–226. And/or Edward Craig (1990) *Knowledge and the State of Nature: An Essay in Conceptual Synthesis* (OUP).

To revise Gettier you could look at: William Lycan (2006) 'On the Gettier Problem Problem' in S. Hetherington, ed. *Epistemology Futures* (OUP) or Sven Bernecker and Duncan Pritchard, eds. (2011) *Routledge Companion to Epistemology*. Part II 12 Weatherson, Brian (2003) 'What Good are Counter-Examples?' in *Philosophical Studies* 115(1), pp. 1–31.

Past Questions

You cycle around an area full of many red-barn facades that misleadingly look like real barns. You then pass by one genuine green barn. Do you know that there is a green barn there? [2023-2024]

Is knowledge a mental state? [2022-2023]

In what sense, if any, is knowing something incompatible with its being merely a matter of luck that one's belief is true? [2021-2022]

'Knowledge can't be analysed; but the various conditions that feature in the unsuccessful analyses nonetheless capture everything that is valuable about knowledge.' Is this a fair assessment? [2020-2021]

'Gettier cases force us to choose between (a) accepting that knowledge requires infallible justification of a kind we almost never have and (b) accepting that some beliefs amount to knowledge simply by luck.' Do they? If so, which should we choose? [2019-2020]

Part I: The Gettier Problem, Causal and Reliabilist formulations of Justification

Standard Gettier Problems and solutions

Gettier's objection towards the standard analysis of knowledge

- S knows that P iff
 - P is true
 - S believes that P
 - S is justified in believing that P (Chisholm specifies this to be S has adequate evidence for P; Ayer calls this S has the right to be sure that P is true)
- One of the classes of adequate evidence or justification is deduction
 - For Gettier writes, "for any proposition P, if S is justified in believing P, and P entails Q, and S deduces Q from P and accepts Q as a result of this deduction, then S is justified in believing Q"

Classical counterexample: Smith and Jones

- Suppose that Smith and Jones have applied for a certain job. And suppose that Smith has strong evidence for the following conjunctive proposition:
 - (d) Jones is the man who will get the job, and Jones has ten coins in his pocket
- Smith's evidence for (d) might be that the president of the company assured him that Jones would in the end be selected, and that he, Smith, had counted the coins in Jones' pocket ten minutes ago. Proposition (d) entails:
 - (e) The man who will get the job has ten coins in his pocket
- Let us suppose that Smith sees the entailment from (d) to (e), and accepts (e) on the grounds of (d), for which he has strong evidence. In this case, Smith is clearly justified in believing that (e) is true
- But imagine, further, that unknown to Smith, he himself, not Jones, will get the job. And, also, unknown to Smith, he himself has ten coins in his pocket. Proposition (e) is then true, though proposition (d), from which Smith inferred (e), is false. In our example, then, all of the following are true: (i) (e) is true, (ii) Smith believes that (e) is true, and (iii) Smith is justified in believing that (e) is true
- For (e) is true in virtue of the number of coins in Smith's pocket, while Smith does not know how many coins are in Smith's pocket, and bases his belief in (e) on a count of the coins in Jones' pocket, whom he falsely believes to be the man who will get the job

Goldman's Causal Model and Applications

- Goldman's model of knowledge essentially replaces justification with a causal connection between the fact that makes p true (or the fact that p) and Smith's belief of p + that S must correctly reconstruct the causal chain. Knowledge is therefore:
 - S believes that P
 - P is true
 - There is a causal connection between the fact that makes p true

- S must be able to correctly reconstruct the causal chain
- Why the Gettier case is not considered knowledge
 - Suppose that S sees that there is a vase in front of him, but unbeknownst to him, two conditions hold: (1) there is a hologram of a vase, that makes him think that there actually is a vase there and (2) there is a real vase hidden behind the hologram of the vase
 - Here, we deny that S sees that there is a vase in front of him, for his view of the real vase is completely blocked, so that it has no causal role in his formation of his belief. So S cannot be said to know that there was a vase in front of him, purely on the basis of perception (someone could have told him that there was a vase)

Nozick's counterfactual conditions

Nozick's conditional theory of knowledge

- Normal conditions:
 - S believes that p
 - P is true
- Additional subjunctives (conditional in the counterfactual sense)
 - If p was not true, then S would not have believed that p
 - If p was true, then S would have believed that p
- Overall motivation
 - Nozick wants to increase the sensitivity of belief to the truth
 - Gettier problems of not knowing arise when "[my belief] is caused by the fact that is its content" but "[my belief] is not sensitive to that fact"
- Motivation for addition #1
 - Resolves the traditional Gettier case. Suppose the Ford and Smith example. If Smith did not own a Ford, I would still believe that Smith owned a Ford or Brown is in Barcelona
 - This is why it fails to be counted as knowledge
 - Further resolves the traditional Gettier cases against Goldman like the Barn case, for if the Barn I saw was fake, I would still believe that the Barn was there and hence does not count as knowledge
- Motivation for addition #2
 - What it essentially says is that "the subjunctive is true when (roughly) all those worlds in which p holds true that are closest to the actual world, q also is true"
 - Whether or not q is true in p worlds that are still farther away from the actual world is irrelevant to the truth of the subjunctive
 - We consider only the closest group of possible worlds

- The truth of the antecedent (that p) and consequent (S believes that p) is not sufficient for the truth of a subjunctive → so it says more than S believes that p and that p is true
 - Key is in the imagined *will*
 - In the “close” worlds where p is true, he also believes it; not just in the current world where he actually truly believes p
 - This further subjunctive helps to close the insufficiency of the 3rd condition
 - Consider: A person in a tank is brought to believe, by direct electrical and chemical stimulation of his brain, that he is in the tank and is being brought to believe things in this way; he does not know this is true. However, the subjunctive condition is satisfied: if he weren’t floating in the tank, he wouldn’t believe that it was
 - The person in the tank does not know that he is there, because his belief is not sensitive to the truth; although my belief is caused by the fact that is its content, it is not sensitive to that fact
 - The operators of the tank could have produced any belief, including the false belief that he wasn’t in the tank; if they had, he would have believed that
 - This second subjunctive provides additional sensitivity
 - The person in the tank does not satisfy it: Imagine as actual a world in which he is in the tank and is stimulated to what he believes he is. It is not true of him there that if he were in the tank he would believe it; for in the close world to his own where he is in the tank but they don’t give him the belief that he is, he doesn’t believe he is in the tank
 - Another case: The dictator of a country is killed; in their first edition, newspapers print the story but later all the country’s newspapers and other media deny the story, falsely. Everyone who encounters the denial believes it. Only one person in the country fails to hear any denial and he continues to believe the truth. He satisfies conditions 1-3 (if p was false, he would not believe that p), yet intuitively he doesn’t know that p.
 - If he had heard about the denials, he too would have believed them (this is the closest world)
 - His belief is not sensitively tuned to the truth and thus does not satisfy the condition that if it were true, he would believe it
- How this differs from Goldman’s causal theory of knowledge
 - Dancy claims that the two subjunctives are actually a generalisation of Goldman’s causal theory of knowledge because it handles additional cases + also S believing p being caused by p is a special case of (if not p) then (S wouldn’t believe that p) since p wouldn’t have caused that belief

- More robust
- Refining condition 4: Ways and methods of knowing
 - Suppose S believes that p through one method of arriving at p, but if p were false he wouldn't use this method but another one instead, whose application would lead him to mistakenly to believe p
 - If only one method M is actually or subjunctively relevant to S's belief that p, then, simply, S knows that p (according to our ordinary notion) if and only if that method M is such that S knows that p via M
 - Suppose a father believes his son innocent of committing a particular crime because of both faith in his son and because he has seen presented in the courtroom a conclusive demonstration of his son's innocence
 - His belief via the method of courtroom demonstration satisfies 1-4 but his faith-based belief does not. If his son were guilty, he would still believe him innocent, on the basis of faith in his son. Thus his belief via faith in his son violates condition 3. Looking at his belief alone, without mention of method, his belief that p violates the third condition, which made no mention of method
 - So, Nozick proposes that S knows that p if there is some method via which S believes that p which satisfies conditions 1-4, and that method is not outweighed by any other method(s), via which S actually believes that p, that fail to satisfy conditions 3-4
 - Nozick asks us to consider if M1 recommends p and M2 recommends not-p which would we believe to evaluate
- Counter Gettier Case (to both Goldman and Nozick)
 - Consider that there is a hidden machine in the room that illuminates a hologram of the vase when there is a vase pressing down a button. This hologram of the vase blocks any possible sighting of the actual vase in the room. Then, S believes that 'there is a vase in the room', which is true. If p were false, then S would not believe that p (since no vase would be pressing down on the button to activate the hologram). If p were true, then in the closest possible worlds, S would have believed that p.

Zagzebski's Algorithm

Zagzebski and the inescapability of the Gettier problem

- The reason for the Gettier problem arising is due to a relatively minor failure of the cognitive situation to connect to the truth. **As long as the property that putatively converts true belief into knowledge is analysed in such a way that it is strongly linked with the truth, but does not guarantee it, it will always be possible to devise cases in which the link between such a property and the truth is broken but regained by accident**

- Algorithm to find a counterexample against any analysis that 'S knows that p' = 'p is true' + 'S believes p' + Y
 - Start with a case where S has a false belief p which possesses the property Y
 - Make the degree of Y large enough such that it satisfies what we consider the justificatory threshold, with the constraint that property Y cannot entail the truth of p (since we want the justificatory element to be independent of truth)
 - Amend the case by adding an element of luck such that the belief is now accidentally true but leave other details in place so that the belief p still has the property Y
- Zagzebski's dilemma: if justification is fallible, then Gettier cases are inevitable; if justification is infallible, then scepticism is inevitable
 - Why do we not want justification to be infallible? Then knowledge would just be "S knows that p" = "S is justified in believing p" + "S believes p"
 - If justification is infallible, then we reach a circularity: How do we know that p? By being justified in believing that p. How are we justified in believing that p? At least by knowing that p is true. How do we know that p is true? Etc etc
 - So, justification cannot be indefeasible

Part II: The unanalysability of Knowledge

What does an analysis of knowledge mean?

What is an analysis of a concept? What is a successful analysis?

- The reductive program for knowledge (R) claims that the concept of knowledge can be broken down into individually necessary but insufficient and jointly sufficient conditions i.e. “Knowledge = truth + belief + X”.
 - Membership criterion based on these individually necessary but insufficient and jointly sufficient conditions
- A non-reductive account (NR), motivated by the recalcitrant challenges to the reductive program, seeks to explain the underlying nature of knowledge i.e. that knowledge is a factive mental state
 - Conceptual vs Metaphysical: a conceptual analysis undertakes declassification as its primary objective, while a metaphysical analysis undertakes the nature of the concept as its primary objective
 - The word “analysis” might only be given to reductionism and not non-reductive
- Non-circularity is important
- Metaphysical vs Conceptual: we undertake a metaphysical investigation when we want to understand if knowledge is (purely) mental or a hybrid of mental and non-mental components
 - Williamson makes the switch from conceptual to discussions about the metaphysical → I suppose if knowledge is metaphysically composite, it would entail it being composite in concept

Concept vs Metaphysical Distinction

- A conceptual analysis might be conceived of as serving a classificatory function or providing a definition – almost like set membership
 - This is why any analysis of a concept tends to be reductive by providing individually necessary and jointly sufficient conditions to provide a membership condition
- Metaphysical analyses might be conceived as understanding the underlying nature of the subject of analysis
 - Metaphysical analysis of modality either circular in referring back to primitive modality or in terms of possible worlds

Bloome-Tillman’s Warrant entails Knowledge

Bloome-Tillman’s argument

Merrick’s argument that warrant entails truth

- Proof by contraposition

- If a belief can be warranted and false, then it can be warranted and accidentally true; A belief cannot be warranted and accidentally true; Therefore, a belief cannot be warranted and false
- Motivation for Premise 1
 - Suppose that Smith, in w , has the warranted false belief that Jones owns an Escort
 - There is another possible world, w^* , that differs from w only in the fact that Smith's belief that Jones owns an escort is accidentally true for Smith
 - So Smith, in w^* , has the accidentally true belief that Jones owns an Escort
 - The far away and unknown deaths of Jones's aunt in w^* could not make Smith's (otherwise warranted) belief unwarranted
 - So Smith, in w^* , has the warranted belief that Jones owns an Escort
 - So Smith, in w^* , has the warranted, accidentally true belief that Jones owns an Escort
 - So, if Smith, in w , has the warranted false belief that Jones owns an Escort, then Smith, in some other possible world w^* , has the warranted, accidentally true belief that Jones owns an Escort

Parallel argument that warrant entails knowledge

- Bloome-Tillman constructs a parallel argument to suggest that warrant entails belief, which together with Merick's argument, entails that warrant entails both belief and truth, and hence knowledge since knowledge is supposedly belief + truth + warrant
- Main argument
 - If a subject can be warranted in believing p without believing p , then a subject can have a warranted but accidentally true belief p
 - No subject can have a warranted but accidentally true belief p
 - Therefore, no subject can be warranted in believing p without believing p
- Auxiliary premise
 - Suppose that Smith, in w , is warranted in believing that Jones owns an Escort without believing that Jones owns an Escort
 - There is another possible world, w^* , which differs from w only in the fact that Smith believes that Jones owns an Escort on the basis of reading in tea leaves
 - So Smith, in w^* , has the accidentally true belief that Jones owns an Escort
 - The fact that Smith believes that Jones owns an Escort on the basis of reading tea leaves could not obliterate Smith's (otherwise impeccable) warrant for believing that Jones owns an Escort
 - Nozick would clearly deny this in his 'ways of knowing'
 - So Smith, in w^* , is warranted in believing that Jones owns an Escort
 - So Smith, in w^* , has the warranted, accidentally true belief that Jones owns an Escort

- So, if Smith, in w , is warranted in believing that Jones owns an Escort without believing that Jones owns an Escort, then Smith, in some other possible world w^* , has the warranted, accidentally true belief that Jones owns an Escort
- Warrant does not just entail knowledge but warrant *just is* knowledge
 - So, warrant has a property of beliefs distinct from knowledge does not exist, rendering the project of analysing the concept of knowledge doomed to failure

Kearns' Objection

- Does not object to warrant entailing knowledge but argues that if warrant entails truth and belief does not show that knowledge is unanalysable
- Intuition: Consider two analyses of knowledge – (A) knowledge is non-accidentally true belief (no luck) and (B) knowledge is true belief caused by the truth that it is believed (Goldman)
 - B: S knows that p iff (1) S believes that p , (2) it is true that p and (3) the fact that p causes S's true belief that p
 - Third conditions entail both that the belief is true and that the belief exists and that the analysis of B cannot be written so that their third conditions do not entail truth and belief
 - The third condition of A attributes the property of being non-accidental to the fact that S has a true belief that p – it is essential to the analysis that what is non-accidental is that S's belief that p is true
 - But yet, we can clearly see that analyses A and B are both clearly substantive
- Argument: there are substantive analyses of knowledge that entail that warrant entails true belief
 - Bloome-Tillman goes wrong in assuming that any analysis of knowledge must be a list of logically independent facts that are each necessary conditions of knowledge and that are jointly sufficient for knowledge
 - We may rewrite B to "S knows that p iff (3) the fact that p causes S's true belief that p " but this is still a substantive analysis of knowledge
 - This is because the statement that "the fact that p causes S's true belief that p " involves more concepts and relations between concepts than "S knows that p "

Williamson's Knowledge as a Mental State

Summary (from Williamson's Knowledge First Epistemology)

- Traditional Aim of Epistemology was to provide an analysis of knowledge that broke down the concept to constituent, smaller concepts
 - Sometimes, it was also meant to analyse the underlying nature of knowledge without providing a synonym

- Most important was to provide a non-circular statement of necessary and sufficient conditions for S to know that $p \rightarrow$ paradigmatic candidate is JTB
- Why did we expect a non-circular necessary and sufficient condition type analysis of knowledge? We already have some non-trivial necessary conditions such as truth and belief $\rightarrow$ but we also have a non-trivial necessary condition for 'being red' i.e. 'being coloured' but a sufficient analysis would be 'being red' = 'being coloured' + X where X can only be 'being red' $\rightarrow$ so this itself is not a reason for expecting a full non-circular account
- Another reason for the expectation is due to internalist theories of the mind: purely mental states have no consequences for the external world
 - Since knowing that it is snowing has external consequences, we can decompose knowing into mental and non-mental components
 - But we have strong reasons to deny internalism via semantic externalism i.e. the content of our mental states can be external: for instance the mental state of "loving or hating Mary" is about some external object Mary, or believing "it is snowing" also refers to the snow outside the mind
- Reject the problem of access: that one is not always in a position to know whether one is in it but we always know if we are in some mental state (obviously false)
 - Derivative problem: makes knowledge not fully transparent to introspection and therefore undermines the operational nature of knowledge as a set of operational rules to follow
- Knowing as reasons for action: genuine mental states play a role in causal explanations of rational action and they only cite beliefs and desires and not knowledge $\rightarrow$ so knowledge cannot be a mental state
 - Williamson denies this argument because he denies the assumption that causal explanations of action are always of action "at the next instant" $\rightarrow$ if a teetotaler falsely believes a glass of gin to contain water, he might spit the gin out as soon as he tastes it without drinking any which is far less likely to happen if he knows the glass to contain water
 - Thinks that knowing is arguably more relevant to rational action than believing
- Knowledge as prime can help us develop explanations for when to believe in something $\rightarrow$ cognitive norm of knowledge rule for belief: believe P only if you know that P
 - There is something wrong with believing "It's raining and I don't know that it's raining" even though the belief could very easily be true
 - If justified belief is one that satisfies the norm for belief, then by KRB, only knowledge constitutes justified beliefs $\rightarrow$ no false justified beliefs
- Knowledge as prime can also help explain norms for assertion: assert P only if you know that P $\rightarrow$ analogous to KRB

- Knowledge is not the only truth-entailing attitude: perception and memory can also be truth-entailing mental states
 - If I perceive that it is raining, it is raining → perception and memory can also arguably entail not just truth but knowledge
 - If perceiving and remembering are knowing-entailing mental attitudes, we can commit to a wider conjecture: that knowing is the most general truth-entailing mental attitude, the one you have to a proposition if and only if you have any truth-entailing mental attitude at all

Williamson's Argument

Broadly, we can structure Williamson's argument as

1. All reductive accounts of the concept *knows* says that it at least entails some conjunctive concept that has the concept true as a non-trivial conjunct
2. The concept *true* is non-mental
3. Any concept with a non-trivial non-mental conjunct is not a purely mental concept
4. So, all reductive accounts of the concept *knows* equates it with a non-purely mental concept
5. The concept *knows* is a purely mental concept (KMS)
6. A purely mental concept cannot be identical to a non-purely mental concept
7. So, the purely mental concept *knows* cannot be identical to any reductive analysis of *knows* which are non-purely mental.

Thus, every reductive account of *knows* is false or equivalently, knowledge is unanalysable. (NASK). The workhorse of Williamson's argument is premise 5 i.e. KMS, which he defends both negatively and positively.

Williamson's characterisation of KMS – as the most general factive mental state

- A propositional attitude is factive iff, necessarily, one has it only to truths
 - We can deduce A from "S knows that A" even if A is unanalysable
- Knowing is stative and is not a process
- FMSO (factive mental state operator) ascribes an attitude to a proposition to the subject
- FMSO is semantically unanalysable because semantically analysable expressions have a more complex semantic role than that of simply denoting an attitude

Williamson's Negative Case

- The inductive hypothesis (IH): Given 40 years of failure in finding a solution immune to Gettier examples, we might be hard-pressed to expect a non-circular reductive account of knowledge
 - Supplementary argument: We may not expect a non-circular, reductive account of knowledge

- Special Access (SA): our mental states are transparent to us i.e. for all mental states, we are always in a position to know that we are in them. Because we are not always in a position to know that we know that p, KMS fails
 - Williamson argues that mental states are not all transparent i.e. that for every mental state S, whenever one is suitably alert and conceptually sophisticated, one is in a position to know whether one is in S.
 - Obviously fails for at least some mental states: Let happy be a paradigmatic mental state. Consider an Olympic athlete, on the precipice of victory. Overwhelmed with emotion, he may not have been aware that he is in a state of happiness
 - Systematic Argument that any non-trivial mental state does not satisfy transparency: for any non-trivial mental state S, one can change from being in it to not in it through a very gradual process. Since our powers of discrimination are limited, in the last moments of the process at which one is still in the state, one cannot discriminate how one is from how one is in the first moments at which one is no longer in the state.
 - One can feel pain without being in a position to know that one feels pain (at some ambiguous point in the transition)
- Objection from believing truly (BT): Saying that knowing is a mental state is to assimilate it to a paradigmatic mental state such as believing, but believing truly is in between believing and knowing, and believing truly is not a mental state since no mental state is necessary and sufficient for believing truly that it is raining. Let S1 be the state of knowing it is raining, S2 be believing truly that it is raining, S3 be believing that it is raining. We might say that everything in S1 is in S2, everything in S2 in S3. But S2 is not a mental state while S1-3 are mental states
 - Counter-analogy: let P1 be the property of being an equilateral triangle, let P2 be the property of being a triangle whose sides are indiscriminable in length to the naked human eye while P3 is the property of being a triangle; while P1 and P3 are geometrical properties, P2 is not, but that doesn't stop everything in P3 from being in P2 and everything in P2 from being in P1
 - General point: If S is a mental state and C a non-mental condition, there need be no mental state S* such that, necessarily, one is in S* iff one is in S and C obtains. The non-existence of such an S* is consistent with the existence of a mental state S** such that, necessarily, one is in S** only if (but not if) one is in S and C is met
- Objection from Belief (B): Knowing may entail belief since "If S knows that A, then S believes that A" sounds trivially true
 - But it is not trivially valid since the unconfident examinee, taking herself to be guessing, reliably gives correct dates as a result of forgotten history lessons, may be said to know about the event without believing that the dates of the events actually occurred then

- Furthermore, Williamson thinks that not every conceptually necessary condition is a conjunct of a conjunctive analysis → it is a mistake to assume the above statement is valid only if the connection between knowledge and belief is explicable by an analysis of knows in terms of believes
 - It may be a priori that being crimson is sufficient for being red, but that implication need not be explained by an analysis of crimson in terms of being red (not a very strong example)
- We might reverse the analysis by analysing believes in terms of knows – a disjunction of knows with other concepts
- Internalism (I): that genuine mental states cannot have any constituent dependence on a person's environment i.e. mental states must be 'narrow' and not 'broad'. Because 'S knows that p' entails 'p', and assuming that p is an ordinary contingent fact about the world, KMS fails
 - Brief overview: Williamson's denial of I rests on considerations of 'rationally believing' being an externalist mental attitude. Suppose that if 'rationally believing' were the mental component of 'knowing', and this amounts to the claim that 'knowing' adds nothing mental to 'rationally believing'. This means that for any proposition p and cases A where one is rationally believing there must be some case where one is exactly in the same mental state as A of 'rationally believing p', and yet knows that p. Suppose further that under an illusion, I rationally believe that 'a dog is barking' because I hear barking noises. Because my proposition fails to refer, then I lack a corresponding belief that the dog is barking which is part of my mental state. But if knowing adds nothing mental to rationally believing, then it must be possible for someone to be in that same mental state (without the singular belief to make the inference from) and yet know that a dog is barking. Consequently, I cannot be said to be rationally believing p even though my thought process is flawless – this means that even 'attitudes of rational belief to a given content' depend on external constituents. And if such mental attitudes can depend on external constituents, then it seems that the claim that all mental states cannot depend on the external environment is flawed
- Full argument against internalism (internalism is false and that, on the externalism alternative, knowing is a genuine mental state)
 - Internalist holds that one's mental states are determined by one's internal physical states → since knowing is factive, whether one knows p constitutively depends on the state of one's external environment whenever the proposition p is about that environment; so whether one knows p is not determined by one's internal physical state → knowing is not a mental state but a metaphysical hybrid of mental states with mind-independent conditions on the external world

- Overall strategy: show that objections to the involvement of factive attitudes in genuine mental states are sound only if corresponding objections to the involvement of broad contents in genuine mental states are also sound
 - For instance, cases in which a difference in the external environment constitutes a difference in knowing hardly show that knowing is not a mental state unless cases in which a difference in the external environment constitutes a difference in broad content show that believing a broad content is not a mental state
 - Externalism for factive mental attitudes is as well placed as externalism about mental content
- Definitions
 - Case: a total state of a system
 - A Condition obtains or fails to obtain in each case, specified by 'that' clauses'
 - A condition C entails a condition D if and only if for every case a, if C obtains in a, then D obtains in a
 - C is identical to D iff for every case a, C obtains in a iff D obtains in a
 - A case a is internally like a case b iff the total internal physical state of the agent in a is exactly the same as the total internal physical state of the agent in b
 - A condition C is narrow iff for all cases a and b, if a is internally like b, then C obtains in a iff C obtains in b
 - C is broad iff it is not narrow
- Mental states that we normally talk about, like one sees Naples, one referring to Naples, are often broad because none obtain in cases in which one lacks even indirect causal connection with Naples, whereas one's internal physical state has no such necessary dependence on a city
 - Similarly, one loves Mary and one hates Mary are both broad conditions, for they depend on a relation to the particular individual named
- Content ascriptions to propositional attitudes in natural language is a source of broad conditions: The sentence "One believes that there are tigers" expresses a broad condition → in some possible world like ours, there are only tiger-like creatures called schmigers → twin Matthew (a molecule for molecule duplicate) is in such a world and has exactly the same internal physical state as Matthew is; both express the belief "there are tigers" but only actual Matthew is correct while Twin Matthew expresses a false belief
 - But if Twin Matthew believes truly, then he does not believe that there are tigers since his belief is true if and only if there are

schmigers; but since Matthew believes truly, he believes that “there are tigers”

- So, I differ from my twin in believing that there are tigers even though we are in the same internal state
 - But isn't this because I *believe truly* rather than simply expressing a mere belief? → I guess the disposition to believe truly is an internal state? But it depends on external truth?
- In ascribing a propositional attitude—such as a thought, belief, desire—to a person, we use a “that”-construction, followed by an embedded sentence. The sentence is commonly thought to express the content of the propositional attitude: that is, the meaning of the sentence is identical with the content of the propositional attitude. Therefore, if the sentences expressed by you and your twin have different meanings, it is difficult to avoid the conclusion that the contents of your thoughts, beliefs and desires also vary. However, beliefs, and other propositional attitudes are individuated by their contents. The belief that grass is green is a different belief from the belief that snow is white because their contents are different. Therefore, if the contents of the beliefs had by you and your twin are different, then so too are your beliefs.
 - Suppose you say, or write, the sentence, “Water is wet”. Your twin produces a sentence with the same phonetic or syntactic form: “Water is wet”. Do the two sentence-tokens have the same meaning? Putnam’s answer is that they do not. This answer will be found inviting by anyone who thinks of meaning as a matter of *reference*, or *truth-makers*, or *truth-conditions*, or, in short, anyone who thinks that the meaning of a term or sentence is, at least in part, a matter of its relation to some kind of worldly correlate. The *reference* of the syntactic/phonetic form “water” differs between you and your twin. When you utter the sentence, you are making a report about water—a substance composed of hydrogen and oxygen. But your twin’s corresponding report is about the substance on twin earth. For purposes of identification, we can call this substance *twater*, but the twin earthlings, of course, call it no such thing. They speak twin-English, and so refer to this substance with the syntactic/phonetic form “water”. Moreover, your utterance and your twin’s utterance are both true, but different facts *make them true*.
- One way of denying KMS is to say that knowing adds *nothing mental* to ‘rationally believing’ or ‘having a justified belief’
 - For all propositions p and cases a, if in a one rationally believes p then in some case b one is exactly in the same mental state as in a and one knows p (1)

- Suppose that it looks and sounds to me as though I see and hear a barking dog; I believe that a dog is barking on the basis of the argument 'That dog is barking; therefore, a dog is barking'. Unfortunately, I am the victim of an illusion, my demonstrative fails to refer, my premise sentence thereby fails to express a proposition and my lack of a corresponding singular belief is a feature of my mental state, according to the content externalist
- If I rationally believe that a dog is barking, then someone could be in exactly the same mental state as I actually am and know that a dog is barking but that person too would lack a singular belief to serve as the premise of the inference, and would therefore not know that a dog is barking
- Consequently, if the contents of beliefs depend like that on the external environment, then so too does the attitude of rational belief to a given content → (1) combined with content externalism makes rational belief an externalist mental attitude
- If taking the externalist attitude of rational belief to a given content can contribute to one's mental state (since rational belief is a paradigmatic mental state), then so should taking the externalist attitude of knowledge to that content also contribute to one's mental state

Deeper criticism: Williamson replies to the internalist objection that externalist mental states are simply really conjunctions of internalist mental states with environmental factors – but he argues that the envisaged separation is not possible. The argument is split into two parts

1. The internalist claims that externalist mental properties are conjunctions of internalist mental properties with environmental non-mental properties. Williamson argues that we can characterize, in advance of any particular view of narrow content, what these internalist and environmental properties would have to be.
2. He argues that the externalist mental state in question can fail to obtain even when its internalist and environmental 'halves' obtain. What this will show is that these 'halves' were not really halves of the externalist property after all.

More quickly, the form of argument, applied to the case of believing *p*, is: if believing *p* had an internal and external component, they would have to be *e* and *i*; but *e* and *i* can obtain without the agent in question believing *p*, so believing *p* cannot simply consist in *i* and *e*. Hence there are no internal and external components which comprise believing *p*

- Definitions (terminology tweaked from TW)
 - We can think of a situation as a possible world, with one agent specified as the agent of the situation. This does not mean that we can only consider possible worlds with one person in them; it's just that we specify one of these

people as the agent of the situation. These are similar to what are sometimes called 'centered worlds.'

- A situation is internally like another iff the agent in the first is an intrinsic duplicate of the agent in the latter. A situation is externally like another iff the total state of the environment (external to the agent) in the first is the same as that in the latter.
- A property is narrow iff it is shared between agents in all situations which are internally like each other. A property is broad iff it is not narrow. A property is environmental iff it is shared by all situations which are externally like each other.
- A property is composite iff it is the conjunction of a narrow property with an environmental property. A property is prime iff it is not composite
- In addition to these, I will use the term factor. I will say, e.g., that composite properties have two factors, a narrow factor and an environmental factor.
- The argument (focus mainly on belief)
 - What the narrow and environmental factors of belief would have to be
 - We begin with two more definitions. For any broad property F, we can define the property virtual-F as follows: an agent has virtual-F iff it is an intrinsic duplicate of an agent who has F.
 - It should be clear that virtual-F will be a narrow property, in the above sense. (Intuitively, virtual-F will often be a disjunctive property.)
 - We can also define an analogous property which is environmental rather than narrow.
 - We will say that a situation has outward-F iff it is externally like some situation in which the agent has F.
 - Just as virtual-F will be narrow, outward-F will be environmental.
 - Now let's turn our attention to belief. Let the mental property with which we are concerned be the property of believing that tigers growl. For familiar reasons, this is plausibly an externalist property. Using the above definitions, we can define the properties virtual-tiger-belief and outward-tiger-belief.
 - Lemma 1: Virtual-tiger-belief is the strongest narrow property entailed by tiger-belief; it is entailed by tiger-belief, and entails every other narrow property entailed by tiger-belief.
 - Argument: Let N be a narrow property entailed by tiger-belief. Since N is entailed by tiger-belief, whenever an agent has the property tiger-belief, that agent also has N. Now take any situation in which the agent has virtual-tiger-belief. We know from the definition of virtual-tiger-belief that the agent in this situation is an intrinsic duplicate of an agent who has tiger-belief. But this means that the agent is also an intrinsic duplicate of an agent who has N. But this also means that the agent has N, since N is narrow. Hence

virtual-tiger-belief entails every narrow property entailed by tiger-belief.

- Lemma 2. Outward-tiger-belief is the strongest environmental property entailed by tiger-belief; it is entailed by tiger-belief, and entails every other environmental property entailed by tiger-belief.

- Established by parallel argument

- Thesis 1: If believing that tigers growl is composite, then its narrow factor is virtual-tiger-belief and its environmental factor is outward-tiger-belief.

- 1. Suppose that tiger-belief is composite. 2. Then there is an environmental property E and a narrow property N such that an agent has tiger-belief iff she has the conjunctive property E & N. (1, def. of 'composite') 3. Tiger-belief entails N. (2) 4. Virtual-tiger-belief entails N. (3, Lemma 1) 5. Tiger-belief entails E. (2) 6. Outward-tiger-belief entails E. (5, Lemma 2) 7. The conjunction of virtual-tiger-belief and outward-tiger-belief entails the conjunction of N and E. (4,6) 8. The conjunction of virtual-tiger-belief and outward-tiger-belief entails tiger-belief. (2,7) 9. Tiger-belief entails the conjunction of virtual-tiger-belief and outward-tiger-belief.

- Conclusion established

- Thesis 2: The factors of believing that tigers growl are not virtual tiger-belief and outward-tiger-belief.

- Argument: a situation can be such that the agent of the situation is in virtual-tiger-belief and the situation is in outward-tiger-belief without the agent believing that tigers growl

- We come up with a situation S which is (i) internally like one situation in which the agent of the situation believes that tigers growl, and (ii) externally like another situation in which the agent of the situation believes that tigers growl, and yet (iii) such that the agent in S does not believe that tigers growl. It will follow from (i) and (ii) that S is one in which virtual-tiger-belief and outward-tiger belief obtain; so if we can find such a situation which also satisfies (iii), Williamson will have proved his case.

- Let a be the case in which tigers inhabit the mountains while schmigers (which appear like tigers) inhabit the jungle; one remembers one's encounters with tigers in the mountains but totally forgets one's encounters with schmigers in the jungle. One believes that tigers growl; since one has no recollection of schmigers, one does not believe that schmigers growl. Let b be a case in which tigers inhabit the jungle while schmigers inhabit the mountains; one remembers one's encounters with tigers in the jungle but totally forgets one's encounters with schmigers in the mountains. One

believes that tigers growl; since one has no recollection of schmigers, one does not believe that schmigers growl.

- Now consider a case y internally like a and externally like b: in y tigers inhabit the jungle while schmigers inhabit the mountains (like b); one remembers one's encounters with schmigers in the mountains (since he is internally like a and thus remembers encounters from mountains) but totally forgets about his encounters with tigers in the jungle. One believes that schmigers growl; since one has no recollection of tigers, one does not believe that tigers growl. Thus, the condition that one believes that tigers growl is prime

Williamson's Positive Case

- Causal explanation of action (CA): Since mental states are said to feature in the causal explanation of our actions by rationalising them, KMS plays a better role in explaining our actions than belief
 - His argument for CA is from analogy: Consider the statement "A thief steals from Bill Gates because he believes he is rich" vs "A thief steals from Bill Gates because he knows he is rich". It seems that we cannot substitute "believe" for "know" without loss of causal explanation
 - To merely believe truly that there was a diamond in the house would give a worse explanation, one whose explanans and explanandum are less closely connected, since he may have given up early
 - The loss in explanation emerges from Williamson thinking that we make a mistake in thinking that mental state provides an explanation for only the immediately succeeding action and not a sequence of actions
 - For instance, the thief not knowing that Bill Gates is rich might serve as an explanation for why he immediately exited the building once he realised that Bill Gates was not, in fact, rich; or the thief knowing that Bill Gates is rich serves as an explanation for why the thief both chose to steal from him and continued to steal from him
 - Merely believing does not provide us an explanation for the second
 - I think there are two objections to this argument
 - I think that the degree of belief, rather than knowledge, is what plays a causal explanation for much of our actions. Suppose we have "A thief steals from Bill Gates because he very strongly believes he is rich"; we no longer have the purported loss (in my view) when we move from "knows" to "very strong believes"
 - Also, are the actions of 'initially drinking water' and 'spitting out water', i.e. the action and its abandonment, not separate actions with correspondingly separate causal explanations?

Williamson's critics: Fricker and Cassam

Cassam Against the Structure of Williamson's Argument

Basic point: argues that Williamson's Distinct Concepts Argument (DCA) which assumes that every standard analysis of knowledge equates it to some conjunctive concept like JTB, and argues that every standard analysis of knows is "incorrect as a claim of concept identity, for the analysing concept is distinct from the concept to be analysed" fails. Also suggests that Williamson's position does provide analysis. Offers his own understanding of knowing from "ways of knowing".

Part 1: DCA fails

- DCA:
 - a. Every standard analysis of the concept knows equates it with some conjunctive concept that has the concept true as a non-redundant constituent
 - b. The concept true is a non-mental concept
 - c. Any concept with a non-redundant non-mental concept constituent is not a mental concept
 - d. So, the conjunctive concepts with the concept knows is equated by the analysis of the standard kind are not mental concepts
 - e. The concept knows is a mental concept
 - f. A mental concept cannot be the very same concept as a non-mental concept
 - g. So the mental concept knows cannot be the same concept as any of the conjunctive concepts with which it is equated by standard analyses
 - h. So every standard analysis of the concept knows is incorrect
- Argument by analogy: let us say a marital status concept is one that says something about that individual's marital status
 - a. Married, single, bachelor are all marital status concepts → unmarried man, according to DCA, is not a marital status concept, since man is not a marital status concept but bachelor is a marital status concept, so bachelor and unmarried man cannot be the same concept
 - b. We might say that unmarried man is not a pure marital status concept and then bachelor is not going to count as a pure marital status concept either since it is to say something about him being a man
 - So, DCA should be revised to be about 'purely mental concepts'
- Is Williamson's Presumption i.e. that knowing is a state of mind plausible justifies premise (e) KMS by defusing all objections
 - a. WP is stronger: knowing is merely a state of mind → a mental state S that is necessary and sufficient for me to know that p
 - b. Basically, Cassam does not think the default metaphysical thesis of KMS is not plausible → since the idea that merely mental includes knowledge is not

clearly entrenched in our ordinary thinking about mental as Williamson implies

- Takes a great deal of sophisticated argument to weaken the prejudice that a factive attitude cannot be merely a state of mind → but I don't think Williamson is suggesting WP because we ordinarily conceive of mental as inclusive of knowing → he just suggests it as is
- Cassam also challenges premise (a) since the epistemologist goal is to uncover the truth-conditions of 'S knows p' rather than to give the meaning of the phrase 'S knows that p'; strangely, Cassam thinks that there is no suggestion that what is on the right hand side (JTB) is equivalent in meaning to what is on the left hand side (i.e. S knows that p) of the biconditional
 - a. Grice argues that out of "father iff male parent" and "awe iff mixture of fear and admiration", only the latter is a genuine piece of analysis → but awe and mixture of fear and admiration might not be the same concept
 - b. It is false that conceptual analysis, at least as Grice conceives it, can establish necessary and sufficient conditions of a particular concept only by finding a conjunctive concept that is identical to the concept being analysed

Part 2: Reductivity in Williamson's thesis

- Principle that know is an FMSO and if ϕ is an PMSO, then from 'S ϕ s that p', one may infer 'S knows that p'
 - This account is explicitly not a decomposition of the concept knows → Traditional analyses are compositional
- Fundamental question: is FMSO more basic than knowledge? → if so, then it is a reductive analysis
 - Sense of basicness: a concept C is more explanatorily basic than another concept D iff C can be explained without using D but D cannot be explained without using C
 - Williamson explains knowledge in terms of FMSO but he denies that the concept of an FMSO can be explained in terms of the concept of knowledge → has to be explained "without essential reference to the notion of knowing, although 'knows' is an example of an FMSO"
 - So, Williamson's account does not seem to be non-reductive conceptual analysis by relating them to concepts at the same level (Strawson's term)

Part 3: What is knowledge

- If one knows that A, then there is a specific way in which one knows → how does S know
 - How did S acquire this piece of knowledge that A → for example, we can say we came to know A by seeing A

- But it is hard to see how remembering that A is a way of coming to know that A (but is a way of knowing A) → a way of knowing does not entail that it was a way of coming to know that A → our focus is on acquiring knowledge
- But remembering is an FMSO (per Williamson), so not FMSO are ways of coming to know that A → FMSOs are too permissive in identifying knowledge acquisition methods
- Cassam suggests that we treat “S knows that A” by identifying the means by which one actually came to know A → means response does not attempt to construct a complete list but is open ended
- Isn't what is knowledge a prior question to “what are the different means by which it is possible to come to know”

Fricker's Objection

Basic objection: even if we accept that externalism about mental content is true, we can still deny KMS

- Characterisation of Williamson:
 - Weaker thesis: for one who accepts externalism about mental content, there is no good ground not to take the further step of accepting factive mental states as fully mental → Fricker thinks this is false i.e. that one who accepts externalism can deny KMS
 - Williamson says we learn the concept of the mental by examples i.e. ostentation, rather than giving a definition → so we have to understand the concept of the mental via its 'marks' which Williamson says are
 - Special access (M1): immediate and epistemically basic non-inferential knowledge of our own mental states; asymmetry between first and third person access
 - Causal-explanatory role in relation to action (M2): Mental predicates are apt to feature in causal explanations of action and other behaviour
 - Internality (M3): An internalist about the mental holds that a genuine mental state can have no constitutive dependence on any feature of the person's environment – i.e. not world involving
 - Does not allow any factive state to be fully mental
 - Pure mental (M4): A state is mental in the fullest sense just if it is purely mental
 - Williamson argues that Knowing fulfil both M1-M2 and denies the truth of M3 → Fricker thinks that we can at least say that a factive state is weakly mental i.e. only impurely mental because each instance of a person's seeing that P consists in her being in some component Purely mental state, plus a certain non-mental condition about her environment obtaining

- Broad states may be weakly mental, but are only impurely so → externalism about the mind denies that broad states can be at most impurely mental → holds that there are mental states whose essence involves the world → satisfy M4 but not M3
 - Moderate internalist: a state satisfies M4 only if it satisfies M3
- Williamson fails to show that states of knowing are Purely, as opposed to Impurely, mental, and that there are good grounds to resist this metaphysically radical claim
 - Williamson denies that knowing is metaphysically compound → his denial is that the state of knowing is 'conjunctive'
 - But Williamson fails to make it clear how much stronger than the weak thesis his claim about knowing is: knowing as not 'conjunctive' is made about the general state of knowing but this thesis is consistent with knowing being **Impurely mental** since Pure mentalness is defined in terms of each realising instance of the state in question not being constituted by a conjunction of a mental with a non-mental condition
 - Every realising instance of a factive weakly mental state could be made up of a purely mental and a non-mental condition, though there is **no 'general essence' of the state qua type**
 - Hence, each instance of knowing could be metaphysically hybrid despite there being no compound general condition CC such that: it is metaphysically necessary that knowing is instantiated just when CC is instantiated
 - Basically, there is no general essence of knowing that has both a non-mental and mental component (or no generally metaphysically necessary and sufficient condition for knowing), but this is consistent with us saying that every particular instance of knowing has some non-mental component (which may differ) i.e. there is no essential non-mental component
- Fricker argues for two thesis
 - CI: Every instance of someone's knowing that P consists in her being in some mental condition short of knowing
 - SK: In every situation Si in which someone NN knows that P, there is a weakest compound (mental and non-mental) condition CC(Si) that holds of NN, specifiable without predicating 'knows' of NN, such that any other situation in which CC(Si) obtained would be one which she knows that P
- Relationship between NASK and KMS
 - NASK: denial that 'knows' has a priori necessary and sufficient conditions revealing it as a conjunction of belief and some further conditions
 - KMS entails NASK: if knowledge is revealed a priori to be a metaphysical hybrid, then the case against Williamson's core claim of KMS, that 'a conjunctive account of knowing' is settled

- NASK does not entail KMS: no entailment from a no a-priori-hybrid-essence to no-hybrid-essence
 - The inductive argument for NASK features as a datum for the historical failure of attempts to devise analyses of knows of the standard, hybrid kind
- FMSO is semantically very thin because it has only two characteristic inferences posited by Williamson: (S FMSOs that $p \rightarrow p$) and (S FMSOs that $p \rightarrow S$ knows that p)
- FMSO is not the only candidate: family resemblance concept hypothesis about knows (which entails NASK) is basically that knowledge is a family resemblance concept i.e. it has implicit semantic complexity and is recognisable by the user's sensitivity to crucial features but the critical features to which users are, constitutively, sensitive in particular cases cannot be set out in an exceptionless necessary and sufficient conditions, recognisable a priori as correct
 - FRC view fits with treating particular states of knowing as metaphysically hybrid
- So Williamson cannot use NASK to argue for KMS
- Intermediate position: accepting both externalism about content with hybridism about factive attitudes
 - Williamson's implicit argument: Since knows is semantically unanalysable, and knowing exhibits M1 and M2, there is no good reason not to take ordinary language at face value, and accept knowing as a factive Purely mental state, satisfying M4 also; no good reason to go on insisting that knowing is and must be metaphysically hybrid
 - Requires that the fact that a type of state that satisfies M1-M2 is evidence for it satisfying M4 $\rightarrow$ but this fails since there is no entailment from satisfying M1-M2 to M4
 - Broadness is not a barrier to M1 so Hybridness is not a barrier either
 - M2 does not tell us much about M4 $\rightarrow$ no tension between knowing being a good explanatory state and each instance of knowing being a conjunctive, hybrid phenomenon (assuming some mental states can ever be composite, which Williamson denies)
 - Externalism about content combined with hybridism about factive attitudes is a dialectically stable position
 - An externalist about content cannot consistently hold that the broadness of knowing ipso facto shows it not to be purely mental but this does not entail WT
 - Fricker thinks that WT will hold just if all the various arguments against internalism (and for externalism) regarding contents have equally sound analogues regarding factive attitudes

- One is impelled to accepting externalism about content through accepting a specific proposition: that the content of a mental state is typically fixed by certain of its causal-cum-contextual relations to what it is about.
 - This means there is no content independently of such relations
- There are positive reasons to think that mental content is fixed in part by crucial relations between a person and the referents of some of her content-bearing states but the fact that content is fixed partly by certain relations, so that mental content is broad, does not entail nor suggest that there are other ways in which mental states are environmentally dependent
 - This is a new and independent proposition
- Fundamentally, externalism about the mental is counter-intuitive, and we should not buy into it further than we are forced to → covert relationality in the fixation of their content is surprising
 - Externalism about factive attitudes is even more so since when someone knows or remembers a fact, what is known, and the mental representation of it involved in the knowing, seems to be non-philosophically primed common sense clearly to be distinct existences
 - To refute KMS it suffices to show that there is a mental condition M_k such that for every possible situation $S(M_k-K)$ in which M_k holds which is not a case of knowing, there is a possible situation $S(M_k+K)$ in which M_k holds and which is a case of knowing, such that the difference between $S(M_k-K)$ and $S(M_k+K)$ consists exclusively in mental factors
 - Fricker suggests that this is not the task for the internalist → the content-Externalist resister of KMS can allow the mental constituent of knowing to be a broad, but non-factive, Purely mental state
- Fricker thinks belief + justification is what encapsulates the mental side of knowing
 - Specifics are too confusing for me to understand

Lowe's objection

- Even if Williamson is right to surmise that knowing cannot be 'factored...into a combination of mental states with non-mental conditions', it doesn't seem to follow that 'knowing is a mental state in every reasonable sense of that term', given that knowing essentially involves something non-mental, namely the truth of what is known

- Not a mental state in the most restrictive way possible
- Knowledge as a propositional attitude i.e. a relation to propositions → but are such propositional attitudes to be regarded as purely mental states since propositions themselves are abstract objects existing quite independently of the subjects of mental states
 - Lowe thinks that philosophers of mind don't actually consider believing, hoping, fearing as literally 'attitudes towards propositions' and in this sense relational states of subjects but consider the 'that' clauses of belief-, hope-ascriptions to serve as 'indices' which enable one to compare and relate such mental states rather in the way in which numerical measures enable one to compare and relate physical states without implying that such physical states are or involve relations to numbers
 - While the concept has a mass of 10kg involves the numerical concept 10 and yet is a purely physical concept → someone who thought that the state of having a mass of 10kg is or involves a relation to an abstract object, the number 10, could very reasonably said to hold the view that the state is not purely physical;
- Mainly denies that hoping, fearing and the rest are genuinely states of subjects at all → allegiance to the truth-maker principle certainly entitles us to suppose that if a belief ascription is true, then it is true in virtue of something to do with the subject of the ascription (the believer) → but that something need not be the believer's possession of an appropriate 'belief-state'
 - Similarly, to deny that colour-properties exist does not commit one to denying that true colour ascriptions may be made, for the truth maker principle does not require us to suppose that what makes a true colour-ascription true is the possession by the object in question of an appropriate colour property
 - What makes it true that a certain star 'is red' is quite different, physically, from what makes it true that a certain flower is red
 - The reification of beliefs and other propositional attitudes states bears all the hallmarks of a naive metaphysics which attempts to read off the ontological structure of the world from the grammatical structure of the language we commonly use to talk about it
- Lowe is inclined to take that there is literally no such thing as knowledge

Craig's objection to the analysis of knowledge

The Practical Explication of Knowledge

- A traditional analysis of knowledge tends to run into problems because our intuitions about where the term "knowledge" applies tend to be smaller than whatever direct criterion we have set out
- Craig also suggests that if our analysis of knowledge becomes more complex to handle Gettier-like counterexamples, fundamental questions about knowledge such

as why “those conditions [have] enjoyed such widespread use” will be increasingly difficult to answer

- Craig suggests that to explicate knowledge, we look at it from a practical point of view: we take some *prima facie* plausible hypothesis about what the concept of knowledge does for us, what its role in our life might be, and then ask what a concept having that role would be like
 - We begin from a situation and whether rather than what we think about the concept directly
 - The concept of knowledge is directly grounded in how we use it and how it serves us practically
- Notion of explication: not to analyse but to construct a new version satisfying certain standards, with the proviso that to count as a new version of the concept it had to emerge with many of its principal features in tact
- Practicality of knowledge: we need true beliefs about the world to guide our actions to a successful outcome → need sources of information to bring them to truth
 - The inquirer wants an informant s.t. Either p and he believes that p or not p and he believes that not p → we describe a person as “knowing” something as a way of signaling that her testimony with respect to that thing is to be trusted
 - If the informant satisfies any condition which correlates well with telling the truth about p, the informant would be regarded as a good source → look for strictly necessary conditions
 - Craig thinks that belief is essential to knowledge (since it correlates well with truth as many people holding beliefs tend to hold true ones)
 - This directs us to the statement ‘S knows *whether* p’ rather than ‘S knows that p’ → ‘p is true’ cannot feature here, and need a disjunctive formula like the informant
- The challenge is in the third clause of ‘justification’ → Craig consider’s Nozick’s two conditions
 - Craig first argues that Nozick’s range of possible worlds under consideration is wider than that of the inquirer’s concern (the possible worlds the inquirer cares about is that which coincides with the range of interest of the inquirer)
 - The practically explicated concept picks the right range of possible worlds and illuminates the reason for doing so → I do not think it is very clear what Craig means
 - Craig also argues that Nozick’s analysis does not reflect the epistemic demands that the inquirer is bound to make: the inquirer has to pick the right informant and no doubt it would help to pick a good tracker of the fact that p
 - But he cannot directly pick such a person because the truth of a counterfactual is not epistemically primary in the sense that that

would require → cannot spot people who satisfy Nozick's counterfactuals as such → argument from opacity

- Craig says that the practical explication offers no precise answer but that the property X is “any detectable property which has been found to correlate closely with holding a true belief as to whether p” and that any such property will do as long as the “correlation be lawlike” i.e. no luck and that the correlation between possessing X and being right about p must be reliable
 - Seems like an argument from vagueness? → basically, X or warrant has no precise or unique identity
 - Furthermore, Craig implicitly suggests that a certain property X is *local* to the kinds of questions asked: “If you want to know the way, ask a policeman” because the property of being a policeman correlates well with giving a right answer to that question

Part III: Alternative Analyses of Knowledge: Virtue-based and Safety-based Virtue-Theoretic Approaches: Sosa

Safety-Based approaches: Pritchard